Lesson-22

SYNTAX I

Topic- 123: Introduction

The word 'syntax' comes originally from Greek and literally means 'a putting together' or arrangement. There was an attempt to produce an accurate description of the sequence or ordering 'arrangement' of elements in the linear structure of the sentence. In the more recent attempts to analyze syntactic structure, there has been a greater focus on the underlying rule system that we used to produce or 'generate' sentences.

A prepositional phrase in English consists of a preposition followed by a noun phrase and a noun phrase consists of an article and a noun. For example, 'near London' is a correct prepositional phrase as London is a proper noun and does not need an article; on the other hand, 'with dog' is not a correct prepositional phrase as 'dog' should have article 'a' with it. So, the correct prepositional phrase is 'a dog'.

Another Goal of Syntactic Analysis

A small and finite (i.e., limited) set of rules that will be capable of producing a large and potentially infinite (i.e., unlimited) number of well-formed structures. The small and finite set of rules is sometimes described as a 'generative grammar' because it can be used to 'generate' or produce sentence structures and not just describe them.

Topic- 124: Generative Grammar

Generative grammar is a linguistic theory that regards grammar as a system of rules that generates exactly those combinations of words that form grammatical sentences in a given language. The generative school has focused on the study of syntax, but has also addressed other aspects of a language's structure, including morphology and phonology. Early versions of Chomsky's theory were called transformational grammar, which is still used as a general term that includes his subsequent theories. Generativists have argued that many of the properties of a generative grammar arise from a universal grammar that is innate to the human brain, rather than being learned from the environment. Noam Chomsky opposed the earlier theories of structuralism by rejecting the idea that each language is different from the other.

The basic concept sets forth the rules to recognize grammatical sentences in a language. These rules differentiate the correct structures from improper sequences of words or ungrammatical sentences in the same language. The sentence is represented as a tree having branches denoting the subordinate and superordinate elements rather than just a sequence of words. Generative grammar attempts to formalize the implicit rules that a person uses while speaking his native language. The rules of generative grammar may appear to be useful only in language studies.

Topic- 125: Properties of Generative Grammar

Noam Chomsky has argued that many of the properties of a generative grammar arise from an 'innate' universal grammar, which is common to all languages. The grammar must generate all the wellformed syntactic structures (i.e., sentences) of the language and fails to generate any ill-formed structures. The grammar will have a finite (i.e., limited) number of rules but will be capable of generating an infinite number of well-formed structures. The productivity of language would be captured within the grammar. Rules of this grammar also need the crucial property of recursion. The grammar will have to capture the fact that a sentence can have another sentence inside it.

Topic- 126: Well-Formed Syntactic Structures

Well-formedness is the quality of a clause, word, or other linguistic element that conforms to the grammar of the language of which it is a part. Well-formed words or phrases are grammatical, meaning they obey all relevant rules of grammar. A form that violates some grammar rule is ill-formed and does not constitute part of the language. A word may be phonologically well-formed. A word, phrase, clause, or utterance may be grammatically well-formed. A semantically well-formed utterance or sentence is one that is meaningful. Grammatical well-formedness and semantic well-formedness do not always coincide, e.g., colorless green ideas sleep furiously. This sentence is grammatically correct but semantically incorrect. Sometimes, native speakers of a language do not agree whether a particular word, phrase, or clause is well-formed. The problem of well-formedness is a problem for generative linguistics. Grammatic generator follows some universal patterns that should not vary among speakers.

Topic- 127: Finite Number of Rules

'A small set of rules operating on a large but finite set of words generates an infinite number of sentences.' The problem with this definition is that it assumes a very bound and discrete view of all elements: rules, lexical items, and sentences. Language is not organized in sentences and the difference between words and rules is likely to be an artifact of dictionary making and grammar writing. Similarly, there is no guarantee, that the actual number of possible sentences is infinite rather than just unimaginably and practically inexhaustibly large (as was argued by Pullum and Scholtz in 2010). As a matter of practical fact, the set of possible expressions in a given language may or may not be infinite; the actual set of all expressions ever uttered is going to be finite.

The set of expressions actually produced by humans (or even machines) is going to be too large to enumerate practically by current (and possibly any) technology but it is going to be finite. Therefore, it really does not matter whether language is infinite or not. The thing that matters is that any language is to allow a set of expressions that is sufficiently large for any purpose a human language can be put toward.

Topic- 128: Recursion

The Crucial Property of Recursion

Recursive ('repeatable any number of times') rules have the capacity to be applied more than once in generating a structure. For example, The gun was on the table. The above sentence has one prepositional phrase describing location i.e., 'on the table'. We can also add 'near the window' and 'in the bedroom' in this sentence. Then it will be The gun was on the table near the window in the

bedroom. Sentences are put inside other sentences e.g., 'Mary helped George.' can become 'Cathy knew that Mary helped George.' In addition, two sentences can be generated inside another sentence such as: John believed that Cathy knew that Mary helped George.

Principally, there is no end to recursion. Grammar will have to capture the facts that:

- A sentence can have another sentence inside it.
- A phrase can be repeated as often as required.
- Recursion is a feature of grammar.
- It is an essential part of a theory of cosmic structure.

Lesson-23
SYNTAX II

Topic- 129: Surface Structure

In transformational and generative grammar, surface structure is the outward form of a sentence. Surface structures are derived from deep structures by a series of transformations. Deep and surface structures are often used as terms in a simple binary opposition, with the deep structure representing meaning, and the surface structure being the actual sentence we see. The final stage in the syntactic representation of a sentence provides the input to the phonological component of grammar. It corresponds to the structure of the sentence we articulate and hear.

Topic- 130: Deep Structure

The 'underlying' level, where the basic components (Noun Phrase +Verb +Noun Phrase) shared by the two sentences can be represented, is called their 'deep structure'.

The grammar must be capable of showing how a single underlying abstract representation can become different surface structures.

Topic- 132: Symbols Used in Syntactic Description

Three more symbols that are commonly used in syntactic description are the following:

- First: an arrow → typically used in the following type of rule:

NP → Art N The dog (→) an article (Art) the and a noun (N) dog

- Second: a pair of round brackets ()

'the dog' and 'the small dog'

(NP) NP → Art (Adj) N

The above shorthand notation expresses the idea that a noun phrase rewrites as (→) an article (Art) and a noun (N), with the option of including an adjective (Adj.) in a specific position between them.

- Third: Curly brackets {}

The list of common symbols and abbreviations is summarized here.

- S sentence
- NP noun phrase
- PN proper noun
- N noun
- VP verb phrase
- Adv. adverb
- V verb
- Adj. adjective
- Prep preposition
- Art article
- Pro pronoun
- PP prepositional phrase
- ungrammatical sentence
- → consists of / rewrites as
- () optional constituent
- {} one and only one of these constituents must be selected.

Topic- 133: Labelled Tree Diagrams

The most common way to create a visual representation of syntactic structures is through tree diagrams. We can use the symbols introduced (Art=article, N = noun, NP = noun phrase) to label parts of the tree as we try to capture the hierarchical organization of those parts in the underlying structure of phrases and sentences. At the top of the tree diagram, we begin with a sentence (S), and divide it into two constituents (NP and VP). In turn, the NP constituent is divided into two other constituents (Art and N) and VP into V and NP.

At the top of the tree diagram, we begin with a sentence (S) and divide it into two constituents (NP and VP). In turn, the NP constituent is divided into two other constituents (Art and N).

Lesson-24

SYNTAX III (RULES OF SYNTACTIC DESCRIPTION)

Topic- 134: Phrase Structure Rules

A tree diagram can have two different ways: simply as a static representation of the structure of the sentence shown at the bottom of the tree diagram. Every single sentence can have a tree diagram. The other one is the dynamic format which is a way of generating not only that particular sentence, but a very large number of other sentences with similar structures.

These rules state that the structure of a phrase of a specific type will consist of one or more constituents in a particular order. Phrase structure rules present the information of the tree diagram in another format.

- S → NP VP
- NP → {Art (Adj) N, Pro, PN}
- VP → V NP (PP) (Adv)
- PP → Prep NP

Topic- 135: Lexical Rules

Phrase structure rules generate structures. To turn those structures into recognizable English, we also need lexical rules. They specify which words can we rewrite constituents such as N.

Topic- 136: Back to Recursion

Recursion is the repeated sequential use of a particular type of linguistic element or grammatical structure. Another way to describe recursion is linguistic recursion. ... A linguistic element or grammatical structure that can be used repeatedly in a sequence is said to be recursive.

Topic- 137: Transformational Rules

Transformational rules (T-Rules) relate the spoken form of the sentence (surface structure) to their underlying meaning (deep structure), for example,

- Linguists often use large words.
- Large words are often used by linguists.

These set contain s synonymous sentence. As the forms are different their phrase marker would be different. Surface structure refers to the actual utterance that can be broken down by traditional analysis. Different surface structure may have the same deep structure or vice versa. Some Types of Transformations

Deletion: A sentence that undergoes the transformation must have the same meaning as the sentence from which it was derived.

Imperative transformation: Transformation never changes meaning. The meaning remains same, e.g.,

You come home

Come home.

Insertion transformation

He knew she was here.

He knew that she was here.

Substitution transformation

Pronoun substitution

Pronominalization Transformation

Topic- 138: Particle Movement

Particle movement takes place in a construction which is made up of a verb and a particle (e.g., 'look up the number').

Topic- 139: IC analysis

Immediate constituent analysis or IC analysis is a method of sentence analysis that was first mentioned by Leonard Bloomfield and developed further by Rulon Wells. The principle of IC analysis is to cut a sentence into two and then to cut those parts into two and to continue with the segmentation until the smallest indivisible unit, the morphemes are reached.

Expansion: Expansion is a technical term, the substitution of one sequence of elements for another. A sequence of element said to be the expansion of another.

Flaws of IC: IC analyses have certain flaws. Firstly, it does not indicate what kind of elements those constituent parts are; it does not even identify except implication. Secondly, it does not show clearly that noun phrases are built on nouns, verb phrases on verbs, etc. Thirdly, IC analysis does not tell us how to form new sentences, i.e., to produce sentences that have not already been attested in some corpus of data.

Lesson-25
SEMANTICS I

Topic- 140: Definition

The word semantics comes from Greece word sema (noun) which means 'symbol' or 'sign'. The verb is Semaino which means 'signify'. The symbol of the synonymy of sema is a linguistic sign. Saussure (1996) states that linguistic sign consists of the signifier, component, in sort of sounds and the signified, the referent outside of language. Semantics is a term which is used in linguistics, which studies the relation between linguistic sign and signified thing. In other words, semantics is a branch of linguistics, which studies about the meaning.

Halliday (1985) states that the term "semantics" does not simply refers to the meaning of words; it is the entire system of meanings of a language, expressed by grammar as well as by vocabulary. Semantics brings in symbols use in the language and outside the language, but its primary concern is human language. In semantics, one is trying to make explicit meanings, i.e., in which manner words and sentences of various grammatical constructions are used and understood by native speakers of that language.

Topic- 141: Types of Meaning

- **Lexical meaning** refers to the meaning of words that belong to one of the four lexical word classes. It is the aspect of meaning usually given in a dictionary.
- **Grammatical meaning** includes the meaning of grammatical items (e.g., function words and inflectional affixes), grammatical functions (e.g., subject and object), and different sentence-types (e.g., declarative and interrogative).
- **Referential meaning** (also called denotative meaning, descriptive meaning, conceptual meaning, or sense) refers to the logical, cognitive, or denotative content of an expression.
- **Connotative meaning** (associative meaning) denotes the associations and secondary meanings the expression evokes.
- **Social meaning** (stylistic meaning) is the information that the linguistic expression conveys about certain social characteristics.
- **Emotive or affective** component of the expression is referred to as its affective meaning. Social meaning and affective meaning together are sometimes called connotation.
- **Reflected meaning** refers to certain associations with another sense of the same expression, whereas collocative meaning (collocation) is conveyed by characteristic word combinations.
- **Thematic meaning** denotes the organization of a message in terms of information structure.

Topic- 142: Conceptual or Denotative Meaning

Conceptual meaning or denotative meaning covers those basic, essential components of meaning that are conveyed by the literal use of a word. It is the type of meaning that dictionaries are designed to describe. Poets, song-writers, novelists, literary critics, advertisers and lovers may all be interested in how words can evoke certain aspects of associative meaning, but in linguistic semantics we're more concerned with trying to analyze the conceptual meaning.

Topic- 143: Associative or Connotative Meaning

Connotative meaning is what people think about two words and find whether it is possible or impossible for the word to have two different meanings from its denotative meaning. When a word has both positive and negative sense value, the word is called a connotative meaning word.

Connotative meaning is the communicative value that an expression has, by virtue of what it refers to, over and above its purely conceptual content.

Topic- 144: Prepositional Meaning

Propositional meaning is the type of meaning that comes from the context within which the sentence is used. Another distinction that has been made is called 'linguistic meaning' which is different from a proposition, and does not carry truth-value.

The linguistic meaning of a declarative sentence is distinct from the proposition expressed by the sentence on some occasion of the sentence's use.

Propositions are statements about the world which can be true or false. In linguistic behaviour, propositions emerge in complete sentences (or clauses). It is the full sentence, in a context, that forms a proposition.

Propositional meaning is the type of meaning that comes from the context within which the sentence is used independent of the context.

Topic- 145: The Prosodic Meaning

Prosody is the study of the tune and rhythm of speech, and the way these features contribute to meaning.

- **Linguistic** - direct expression of meaning
- **Paralinguistic** - may indicate attitude or membership of a speech community
- **Non-linguistic** - may indicate something about a speaker's vocal physiology, state of health or emotional state.

In linguistics, prosody is concerned with properties of syllables and larger units of speech. These contribute to linguistic functions such as intonation, tone, stress, and rhythm. Prosody may reflect various features of the speaker or the utterance: The emotional state of the speaker; the form of the utterance (statement, question, or command) or by the choice of vocabulary.

Lesson-26

SEMANTICS II (SEMANTIC FEATURES and SEMANTIC ROLES)

Topic- 146: Semantic Features

One way in which the study of basic conceptual meaning might be helpful would be as a means of accounting for the 'oddness' we experience when we read sentences such as the following:

- The hamburger ate the boy.

The crucial element or feature of meaning that any noun must have in order to be used as the subject of the verb ate. Such an element may be as general as 'animate being'.

Topic- 147: Semantic Roles

A semantic role is the underlying relationship that a participant has with the main verb in a clause. We can identify a small number of semantic roles (also called 'thematic roles') for these noun phrases. The major drawbacks of the semantic role approach are; there is no agreement about which and how many roles are needed.

Topic- 148: Agent

Agent is the semantic role of a person or thing who is the doer of an event.

Semantic roles indicate the parts played by participants in 'a state of affairs' or 'a situation'.

Topic- 149: Theme

Another role is taken by the ball as 'the entity that is involved in or affected by the action', which is called the theme (or sometimes the 'patient').

The theme is typically non-human, but can be human (the boy), as in the dog chased the boy.

- The boy kicked the ball.
- The wind blew the ball away.
- A car ran over the ball.

The same physical entity can appear in two different semantic roles in a sentence, as in The boy cut himself. The boy is agent and himself is theme. The theme may also be called 'patient' or 'undergoer'.

Topic- 150: Instrument

If an agent uses another entity in order to perform an action, that other entity fills the role of instrument.

- The boy cut the rope with an old razor.
- He drew the picture with a crayon.

In these examples with an old razor and with a crayon are 'instrument' with which the agent performed the action.

Topic- 151: Experiencer, Location, Source and Goal

Experiencer

Experiencer is the semantic role of an entity (or referent) which receives, accepts, experiences, or undergoes the effect of an action.

Location: A number of other semantic roles designate where an entity is in the description of an event where an entity is (on the table, in the room) fills the role of location.

Source: Where the entity moves from is the source (from Chicago)

Goal:

- We transfer money from savings to checking.

The source is savings. The goal is checking.

Lesson-27

SEMANTICS III (LEXICAL RELATIONS)

Topic- 152: Synonymy

Two or more words with very closely related meanings are called synonyms.

The idea of 'sameness' of meaning used in discussing synonymy is not necessarily 'total sameness'.

Topic- 153: Antonymy

Antonymy refers to the pair-wise relation of lexical items in context that are understood to be semantically opposite.

Two forms with opposite meanings are called antonyms.

- Two main types, 'Gradable' (opposites along a scale)
- 'Non-gradable' (direct opposites).

Non-gradable antonyms (also called "complementary pairs")

Other non-gradable antonyms in the earlier list are the pairs: male/female, married/single and true/false. We usually avoid describing one member of an antonymous pair as the negative of the other.

Topic- 154: Hyponymy

The meaning of one form is included in the meaning of another, the relationship is hyponymy. In hyponymous connections, we are essentially looking at the meaning of words in some type of hierarchical relationship. Superordinate (= higher-level)

Two or more words that share the same superordinate term are co-hyponyms. Co-hyponymy captures the concept of 'is a kind of', as 'an asp is a kind of snake'

Topic- 155: Prototypes

A prototype is an early sample, model, or release of a product built to test a concept or process. It is a term used in a variety of contexts, including semantics, design, electronics, and software programming. A prototype is generally used to evaluate a new design to enhance precision by system analysts and users.

All birds are equally co-hyponyms of the superordinate bird. The most characteristic instance of the category 'bird' is robin. The idea of 'the characteristic instance' of a category is known as the prototype.

Topic- 156: Homophony, Homonymy and Polysemy

Two or more different (written) forms have the same pronunciation, are described as **homophones:**

- bare/bear

Homonyms : One form (written or spoken) has two or more unrelated meanings. They have separate histories and meanings. But they have exactly the same form.

- bank (of a river)
- bank (financial institution)

Polysemy: Polysemy is an interesting phenomenon that concerns cases in which a word or phrase enjoys multiple, related meanings.

- head the object on top of body,
- froth on top of a glass of beer,

Homonymy or Polysemy?

Polysemy is the phenomenon whereby a single word form is associated with two or several related senses: face, foot, get, head and run are some examples of polysemy Homonymy is characterized as the phenomenon where a single word form is associated with two or several unrelated meanings, for examples, bank, mail, mole and sole, etc.

Two forms may be distinguished via homonymy and for one of the forms also to have various uses via polysemy.The words date (a thing we can eat) and dates (a point in time) are homonyms. The 'point in time' kind of date is polysemous in terms of a particular day and month (on a letter), an arranged meeting time (an appointment), a social meeting (with someone we like), and even a person (that person we like).

Topic- 157: Metonymy

Metonymy is another type of relationship between words based simply on a close connection in everyday experience.

Metonymy meanings are highly conventionalized and easy to interpret. However, making sense of such expressions often depends on context, background knowledge and inference.

Lesson-28

PRAGMATICS I

Topic- 158: Definition

Pragmatics is the study of meaning in context. This branch of linguistics is concerned with the relationship of sentences to the environment in which they occur is categorized. The communication depends on not only recognizing the meaning of the words in an utterance, but also to interpret what speakers mean to say. The study of what speakers mean is called pragmatics.

Topic- 159: Invisible Meaning

Pragmatics is the study of "invisible" meaning, or how we recognize what is meant even when it isn't actually said or written.

Topic- 160: No Text Without Context

There are some very common words in our language that cannot be interpreted at all if we do not know the context, especially the physical context of the speaker.

Expressions such as tomorrow and here are obvious examples of bits of language that we can only understand in terms of the speaker's intended meaning.

Topic- 161: Linguistic Context

There are different kinds of context. One kind is described as linguistic context, also known as co-text. The co-text of a word is the set of other words used in the same phrase or sentence. The surrounding co-text has a strong effect on what we think the word probably means. We identified the word 'bank' as a homonym, a single form with more than one meaning.

Topic- 162: Physical Context

The physical context is the location of the given word, the situation in which it is used, as well as timing, all of which aid proper understanding of the word. (E.g., furniture and how it is arranged, size of the room, colors, temperature, time of day, etc.)

Topic- 163: Social Cultural Context

Socio-cultural context refers to the idea that language is closely linked to the culture and society in which it is used. Social-Cultural context still includes factors such as illiteracy rate, population geographic distribution, educational level and the populations' ethnic composition. All of these factors can influence the organization's performance, affecting its productivity level and product's quality patterns.

Social context

- Particular social background
- Social status

Cultural context

- cultural setting
- cultural backgrounds
- Style, subject matter, and attitudes

Activities that can raise awareness of socio-cultural context include using stories, analyzing newspaper headlines, and looking at slang and idiomatic language.

Lesson-29

PRAGMATICS II

Topic- 164: Deixis/Deictic Expressions

A deictic expression (or deixis) is a word or phrase (such as this, that, these, those, now, then) that points to the time, place, or situation in which a speaker is speaking. The bits of language that we can only understand in terms of the speaker's intended meaning. They are technically known as deictic (/daɪktɪk/) expressions, from the Greek word deixis, which means "pointing" via language.

- **Person deixis**: To point to things (it, this, these boxes) and people (him, them, those idiots).
- **Spatial deixis**: To point to a location (here, there, near that)
- **Temporal deixis**:To a time (now, then, last week)

Topic- 165: Person Deixis

Deixis is the phenomena of requiring contextual information to create the meaning of a phrase. The term of 'deixis' is used from the Greek word which means 'to show' or 'to indicate', used to denote the elements in a language which refer directly to the situation. It stipulates what a deictic reference to the participant role of a referent is such as:

- **The Speaker**: The utterer of a message. Deictic center of his/her own deictic references
- **The addressee**: The listener of a message
- **The Referents**: Neither speaker nor the addressee, might present there but not addresses directly

Topic- 169: Inference

A successful act of reference depends more on the listener's ability to recognize what we mean than on the listener's 'dictionary' knowledge of a word we use.

- Where is the spinach salad sitting?
- He is sitting by the door.
- Can I look at your Chomsky?
- Sure, it is on the shelf over there.

It is clear that names associated with things (salad) may refer to people, and names of people (Chomsky) to refer to things. The key process here is called inference. An inference is additional information used by the listener to create a connection between what is said and what must be meant. The listener has to operate with the inference:

'If X is the name of the writer of a book, then X can be used to identify a copy of a book by that writer'.

Similar types of inferences are necessary to understand someone who says that Picasso is in the museum or we saw Shakespeare in London or Jennifer is wearing Calvin Klein.

Lesson-30

PRAGMATICS III

Topic- 170: Anaphora

Anaphora can be defined as subsequent reference to an already introduced entity. The connection between an antecedent and an anaphoric expression is created by the use of a pronoun (it), or a phrase with 'the' plus the antecedent noun (the puppy) or another noun that is related to the antecedent in some way (The little dog ran out of the room). The connection between antecedents and anaphoric expressions is often based on inference.

- We found a house to rent, but the kitchen was very small.

Topic- 171: Presupposition

What a speaker (or writer) assumes is true or known by a listener (or reader) can be described as a presupposition. A presupposition is an implicit assumption about the world or background belief relating to an utterance whose truth is taken for granted in discourse. Examples of presuppositions include: When did you stop smoking?

Presuppositions: You used to smoke. You no longer do so.

Topic- 173: Speech Acts

A speech act is an utterance that has performative function in language and communication. "Almost any speech act is really the performance of several acts at once, distinguished by different aspects of the speaker's intention. This is the act of saying something; what one is saying it, such as requesting or promising, and how one is trying to affect one's audience". The term speech act is used to describe actions such as 'requesting', 'commanding', 'questioning' or 'informing'. We can define a speech act as the action performed by a speaker with an utterance. I'll be there at six. You are not just speaking; you seem to be performing the speech act of 'promising'. Speech acts can be analyzed on three levels:

A locutionary act: The performance of an utterance: the actual utterance and its ostensible meaning, comprising phonetic, phatic and rhetic acts corresponding to the verbal, syntactic and semantic aspects of any meaningful utterance.

An illocutionary act: The pragmatic 'illocutionary force' of the utterance, thus its intended significance as a socially valid verbal action.

Perlocutionary act: Its actual effect, such as persuading, convincing, scaring, enlightening, inspiring, or otherwise getting someone to do or realize something, whether intended or not.

Topic- 174: Direct Speech Acts

A direct relationship between the structure and the communicative function of the utterance is called direct speech act. We do not know something. We ask someone to provide the information. Can you ride a bicycle?

Topic- 175: Indirect Speech Acts

It means that there is an indirect relationship between the form and the function of the utterance. 'Can you pass the salt'? This structure is not really asking a question about someone's ability. It is used to make a request. An indirect speech act is a syntactic structure associated with the function of a question, but in this case with the function of a request. Whenever one of the structures in the example above is used to perform a function other than the one listed beside it on the same line, the result is an indirect speech act. The sentence 'You left the door open' is a request for closing the door. Failing to recognize another person's indirect speech act can create confusion:

Visitor: excuse me. Do you know where the ambassador hotel is?

Passer-by: oh sure, I know where it is. (and walks away)

Indirect speech acts are based on some complex social assumptions. They were actually used as requests for directions. Indirect speech acts seem to be that actions such as requests, presented in an indirect way are generally considered to be gentler or more polite in our society than direct speech acts:

Could you open that door for me?

Open that door for me!

Lesson-31

DISCOURSE ANALYSIS I

Topic- 176: Definition

Discourse analysis, or discourse studies, is an approach to the analysis of written, vocal, or sign language use, or any significant semiotic event. The objects of discourse analysis are variously defined in terms of coherent sequences of sentences, propositions, speech, or turns-at-talk.

Topic- 178: Critical Discourse Analysis

Critical Discourse Analysis (CDA) is a field that is concerned with studying and analyzing written and spoken texts to reveal the discursive sources of power, dominance, inequality and bias. It examines how these discursive sources are maintained and reproduced within specific social, political and historical contexts. Fairclough (1993) defines CDA as discourse analysis, which aims to explore often opaque relationships of causality and determination between (a) discursive practices, events and texts, and (b) wider social and cultural structures, relations and processes.

Critical Discourse Analysis aims to help reveal some of the hidden and 'out of sight' values, positions, and perspectives positions, and perspectives. CDA explores the connection between the use of language and the social and political of language contexts in which it occurs. Some principles for CDA:

a. Social and political issues are constructed and reflected in discourse

b. Power relations are negotiated and performed through discourse.
c. Discourse both reflects and reproduces social relations
d. Ideologies are produced and reflected in in the use of discourse.

Topic- 179: Interpreting Discourse

Discourse Analysis—what speakers do in conversation-- is the analysis of language 'beyond the sentence'. But taking them together as a single discourse makes you go back and revise your interpretation of the first sentence after you've read the second. Even coping with texts, written in English, breaking a lot of the rules of the English language is possible to interpret. Rather than simply reject the text as ungrammatical, we try to make sense of it.

Topic- 180: Cohesion

Cohesion is the grammatical and lexical linking within a text or sentence that holds a text together and gives it meaning. It is related to the broader concept of coherence. The structure depends on factors quite different from those required in the structure of a single sentence. Some of those factors are described in terms of cohesion, or the ties and connections within the texts.

'My father once bought a Lincoln convertible. He did it by saving every penny he could. That car would be worth a fortune nowadays. However, he sold it to help pay for my college education. Sometimes I think I would rather have the convertible.'

- Connections to maintain reference to the same people and things throughout: father – he – he – he; my – my – I; Lincoln – it
- Connections between phrases such as: a Lincoln convertible – that car – the convertible.
- More general connections created by a number of terms that share a common element of meaning, such as 'money' (bought–saving–penny–worth a fortune–sold– pay)
- 'Time' (once – nowadays – sometimes).
- A connector (However) that marks the relationship of what follows to what went before.

The verb tenses in the first four sentences are all in the past. A different time is indicated by the present tense of the final sentence. An appropriate number of cohesive ties may be a crucial factor in our judgments on whether something is well written or not. Cohesive structure differs from one language to the next. Cohesion alone is not sufficient to enable connectedness. There must be some other factors that lead us to distinguish connected texts that make sense from those that do not.

Topic- 181: Coherence

Coherence is the key to the concept 'everything fitting together well'. It is beyond the text that exists in people, not in words or structures. It is people who 'make sense' of what they read and hear. People arrive at an interpretation that is in line with their experiences, the way the world is. Coherence is the own understanding of something based on personal experiences. It is a way to incorporate all the disparate elements into a single coherent interpretation, and a process of filling the gaps that exist in the conversation or in the texts. Coherence creates meaningful connections not actually expressed by the words. The process not restricted to trying to understand "odd" texts. In conversational interactions a great deal of what is meant is not actually present in what is said.

Lesson-32

DISCOURSE ANALYSIS II

Topic- 182: Discourse Typology: Spoken and Written, Formal and Informal

Language teaching divide discourse into two major categories:

- Spoken
- Written

They are further divided into the following:

- Speaking and Listening
- Reading and writing

Spoken discourse is less planned and orderly in a conversation. It is more open to intervention by the receivers. Some kinds of spoken discourses are lesson, lectures, interviews, court trials etc. These spoken discourses are planned to some extent by the person who initiates the conversation, and the possibility of subordinate participants can be limited.

In reading novel, one cannot influence its development. At times readers may affect the written discourse, e.g., a person is writing something and the response of the market can influence his writing. A teacher as a reader sends the essays back to the students to be rewritten. In the same way the editors ask writers to edit something from written material. The traditional division of spoken and writing is based on a difference in production. Fundamental distinction as far as discourse structure is concerned.

- Formal discourse
- Informal discourse
- Formal discourse is planned discourse. It may be spoken and written.
- Less formal
- It is unplanned discourse either spoken or written. However, it is usually spoken. Informal spoken especially by foreign language learner is informal and unpredictable.

Lesson-33

DISCOURSE ANALYSIS III

Topic- 188: Conversation as Discourse Type

What is conversation? It is a less formal talk. Discourse analysis can be either vague or any kind of talk as per discourse analysts' definition of conversation.

Talk may be defined as conversation when:

1. It is not primarily necessitated by a practical task.
2. Any unequal power of participants is partially suspended.
3. The number of participants is small.
4. Turns are quite short.
5. Talk is primarily for the participants and not for an outside audience.

Imprecise Definition: The boundary between conversation and other discourse types is fuzzy one. We cannot precisely draw a line between formal and informal talk. There are certain intermediate possibilities in between formal spoken discourse and informal conversation that is a 'seminar'. Talk at conversation end of the cline is difficult to mould to any overall structure. A part of the definition of conversation might be its unpredictability and lack of structure.

Topic- 189: Conversation Analysis

Conversation analysis (CA) is a branch of study which sets out to discover what order there might be in this apparent chaos. CA associated with ethno-methodologist, people who looks for a method when people enter to discussion and make sense of it. They have tried to discover what methods people use to participate in and make sense of interaction (Levinson, 1983, p.286). A conversation is always based on turn taking. The ethno-methodologist tried to see how people handle a conversation at local level, how they judge when to speak and when to be silent. They further started to analyze with the bottom-up approach, i.e., study from word to sentence. They tried to understand how it unfolds in time. They viewed discourse as a developing process rather than a finished product, having planned beginning, middle and ending.

Topic- 190: Turn-taking

In conversation analysis, turn-taking is a term for the manner in which orderly conversation normally takes place. Once a topic is chosen and a conversation initiated, then matters of conversational 'turntaking' arise. Knowing when it is acceptable or obligatory to take a turn in conversation is essential to the cooperative development of discourse. This knowledge involves such factors as knowing how to recognize appropriate turn-exchange points and knowing how long the pauses between turns should be.

Topic- 191: Conversational Principles: Cooperative

According to Paul Grice (1975) we interpret language on the assumption that its sender is obeying four maxims. We assume he or she is intending to:

- be true (the maxim if quality)
- be brief (the maxim of quantity)
- be relevant (the maxim of relevance)
- be clear (the maxim of manner)

Topic- 193: Conversational Principles: Politeness

Politeness principle, like co-operative principle, may be formulated as a series of maxim, which people assume are being followed in the utterances of others. Any flouting of these maxims will take on meaning, provided it is perceived for what it is. Robin Lakoff (1973) formulated the following maxims:

1. Don't impose
2. Give option
3. Make your receiver feels good

Lesson-34

CRITICAL DISCOURSE ANALYSIS

Topic- 194: Introduction

Critical discourse analysis (CDA) is a problem-oriented and trans-disciplinary set of theories and methods widely used in educational research. Many areas of commensurability exist between educational research and critical discourse analysis. First, educational practices are considered communicative events; discourse studies (DS) is useful to analyze the ways in which the texts, talk, and other semiotic interactions that learning comprises are constructed across time and contexts.

Second, discourse studies provide a particular way of conceptualizing interactions that is compatible with sociocultural perspectives in educational research (Gutiérrez, 2008; Lewis, Enciso & Moje, 2007). A shared assumption is that discourse can be understood as a multimodal social practice. Discourse reflects and constructs the social world through many different sign systems. Systems of meaning are caught up in political, social, racial, economic, religious, and cultural formations which are linked to socially defined practices that carry more or less privilege and value in society.

A third area of commensurability is that discourse studies and educational research are both socially committed paradigms that address problems through a range of theoretical perspectives. Critical approaches to discourse analysis recognize that inquiry into meaning making is always an exploration into power. Many of the problems that are addressed, particularly in a globalized world system, have to do with power and inequality.

Lesson-35

APPLIED LINGUISTICS

Topic- 200: Introduction

Applied linguistics is an interdisciplinary field of linguistics which identifies, investigates, and offers solutions to language-related real-life problems.

Topic- 201: Scope

Language, work, and law

- Workplace communication
- Language planning
- Forensic linguistics

Topic- 202: Major Branches

An interdisciplinary field of linguistics which identifies, investigates, and offers solutions to language-related real-life problems. Some of the academic fields related to applied linguistics are education, psychology, communication research, anthropology, and sociology.

- **Bilingualism**: the ability of an individual or the members of a community to use two languages effectively.
- **Multilingualism**: ability to use multiple languages is known as multilingualism.
- **Conversation analysis**: an approach to the study of social interaction and talk-in-interaction has exerted significant influence across the humanities and social sciences including linguistics.
- **Contrastive linguistics**: a practice-oriented linguistic approach that seeks to describe the differences and similarities between a pair of languages.
- **Sign linguistics**: any unit of language (morpheme, word, phrase, or sentence) used to designate objects or phenomena of reality.
- **Language planning and policy**: Decisions about language policies, requirements, and practices have important consequences in all social contexts. Language planning refers to deliberate efforts to influence the behaviour of others through language codes.
- **Pragmatics:** the study of the use of linguistic signs, words and sentences, in actual situations.

Lesson-36

PSYCHOLINGUISTICS I

Topic- 204: Introduction

Psycholinguistics or psychology of language is the study of the psychological and neurobiological factors that enable humans to acquire, use, comprehend and produce language. The discipline is mainly concerned with the mechanisms in which languages are processed and represented in the brain. Psycholinguistics has roots in education and philosophy, and covers the 'cognitive processes' that make it possible to generate a grammatical and meaningful sentence out of vocabulary and grammatical structures.

Topic- 205: Neurolinguistics

The study of the relationship between language and the brain is called 'Neurolinguistics'. The field of study dates back to the nineteenth century when the location of language in the brain was an early challenge. The accident of Mr. Gage made it clear to the scientists that language may be located in the specific parts of the brain; it is not clearly situated right at the front.

Lesson-37

PSYCHOLINGUISTICS II

Topic- 212: Aphasia

All of us experience 'slips', but there are people who live with it constantly. Certain types of language disorders are generally described as 'aphasia'. Aphasia is defined as an impairment of language function due to localized brain damage that leads to difficulty in understanding and/or producing linguistic forms. The most common cause of aphasia is a stroke; traumatic head injuries from violence or an accident may have similar effects. Those effects can range from mild to severe reduction in the ability to use language. Someone who is aphasic often has interrelated language disorders, and the difficulties in understanding can lead to difficulties in production.

Topic- 213: Types of Aphasia

- **Broca's Aphasia or Motor Aphasia**: This type is characterized by a substantially reduced amount of speech, in which distorted articulation and slow and often effortful speech are noted.
- **Agrammatic:** In this type the speech consists entirely of lexical morphemes (e.g., nouns, verbs) whereas there are frequent omissions of functional morphemes (e.g., articles, prepositions) and inflections (e.g., plural -s, past tense -ed). Here is an example. I eggs and eat and drink coffee breakfast my cheek … very annoyance … main is my shoulder … aching' all round here. The patient faces difficulty in articulating single words. However, comprehension is typically much better than production.
- **Wernicke's Aphasia or Sensory Aphasia**: The person with it has difficulties in auditory comprehension. He produces very fluent speech but feels difficulty to make sense. He uses very general terms. 'I can't talk all of the things I do, and part of the part I can go alright, but I cannot tell from the other people'. He finds difficulty in finding the correct word, sometimes referred to as anomia.
- **Conduction Aphasia:** This aphasia is less common, as it is associated with damage to the arcuate fasciculus and is called conduction aphasia. In its symptoms, the person mispronounces words, but typically do not have articulation problems. He is fluent, but may have disrupted rhythm because of pauses and hesitations. His comprehension of spoken words is normally good. He produces words like the following: vaysse and fosh for 'base' and 'wash'. Language disorders described above are almost always the result of injury to the left hemisphere.

Topic- 215: The Critical Period

The apparent specialization of the left hemisphere for language is usually described in terms of lateral dominance or lateralization (one-sidedness). Since the human child does not emerge from the womb as a fully articulate language-user, the lateralization process begins in early childhood. It coincides with the period during which language acquisition takes place. During childhood, there is a period when the human brain is most ready to receive input and learn a particular language. This is sometimes called the 'sensitive period' for language acquisition, but is more generally known as the 'critical period'.

Lesson-38
SOCIOLINGUISTICS

Topic- 216: Introduction

Sociolinguistics, can be defined as the descriptive study of the effects of different aspects of society, including cultural norms, expectations, and context, on the way language is used, and society's effect on language. There are certain social variables that are vital to the discipline such as: e.g., ethnicity, religion, status, gender, level of education, age, etc. The adherence to these rules is used to categorize individuals in social or socioeconomic classes.

Topic- 217: The Standard Language and Vernacular Language

A standard language is a variety of language that is used by governments, in the media, in schools and for international communication. There are different standard varieties of English in the world:

- British English
- North American English,
- Australian English
- Indian English, etc.

Standard Variety: It is an idealized variety, because it has no specific region. It is associated with administrative, commercial and educational centers, printed in newspapers and books, and used in the mass media regardless of region. It is more easily described in terms of the written language (i.e., vocabulary, spelling, grammar) than the spoken language.

Vernacular Language: A vernacular language is the native language or native dialect (usually colloquial or informal) of a specific population, especially. It is distinguished from a literary, national or standard variety of the language, or a lingua franca. It is used in the region or state inhabited by that population, and is spoken by the ordinary people of a country or region.

Topic- 218: Accent and Dialect (Dialectology)

Accent: An accent is a manner of pronunciation peculiar to a particular individual, location, or nation. Technically, it is the description of aspects of pronunciation that identify where an individual speaker is from, regionally or socially.

Dialect: Dialect includes the features of grammar and vocabulary as well as the aspects of pronunciation. You don't know what you're talking about. For example, 'Ye dinnae ken whit yer haverin' aboot.' (by a speaker of Scottish English might say).

Topic- 219: Pidgin and Creole

A pidgin is a variety of a language that developed for some practical purpose, such as trading among people not knowing each other's languages. It may be a Chinese version of the English word 'business'.

Tok Pisin is now a creole. Although still locally referred to as 'Pidgin', the language spoken by a large number of people in Hawai'i is also a creole, technically known as Hawai'i Creole English. A creole initially develops as the first language of children growing up in a pidgin-using community and becomes more complex as it serves more communicative purposes. There are large numbers of native speakers and are not restricted at all in their uses. A French creole is used in Haiti. English creoles are used in Jamaica and Sierra Leone.

Topic- 220: Diglossia and Polyglossia

This is a situation in which two distinct varieties of a language are spoken within the same speech community, 'high' or special variety, learned in school and used for important matters. In Arabicspeaking countries 'the high variety' (Classical Arabic) is used in formal lectures, serious political events and especially in religious discussions. The low variety is the local version of the language, such as Egyptian Arabic or Lebanese Arabic.

The classic diglossic situation is the one in which two varieties of a language, such as standard French and Haitian Creole French, exist alongside each other in a single society. Each variety has its own fixed functions—one a 'high,' prestigious variety a 'low,' or colloquial, one. Using the wrong variety in the wrong situation would be socially inappropriate.

Polydiglossia: The coexistence of two or more languages or distinct varieties of the same language, within a speech community is known as Polydiglossia. According to Lindsay (2007), Polydiglossia is a term that refers to a person's ability to communicate in more than two languages. Polydiglossia situations involve two contrasting varieties (high and low). The concept of polyglossia can be explained in the Singapore Chinese speaking community. Three languages are used by Singaporean Chinese namely Mandarin, Cantonese and Hokkien. Singaporean Chinese people will use Mandarin for their job; Cantonese and Hokkien are for daily conversation among the family used as Informal language.

Topic- 221: Language and Culture

Language and culture is the study of language which originates in the work of anthropologists who have used language as a source of information in the general study of 'culture'. Culture can be defined as 'shared beliefs, values and behaviours of a social group', where social group can be a family at a micro level and a nation at a macro level (Byram, 2008).

Lesson-39

FIRST LANGUAGE ACQUISITION I

Topic- 222: Acquisition and Stages of Acquisition

The stages of language production by the children focusing primarily on the unfolding of lexical and syntactic knowledge are mentioned as follows:

Stage	Typical Age	Description Age
Babbling	6-8 months	Repetitive CV patterns
One- word stage(better one-morpheme or one- unit) or holophrastic stage	9-18 months.	Single open-class words or word stems
Two-word stage	18-24 months	'mini-sentences' with simple semantic relations
Telegraphic stage or early multiword stage	24-30 months	'Telegraphic' sentence structures of lexical rather than functional or grammatical morphemes.
Later multiword stage	30+ months	Grammatical or functional structure emerge

Topic- 224: The One-Word Stage

Holophrastic

During this stage a single form functions as a phrase or sentence to describe an utterance that could be analyzed as a word, a phrase, or a sentence. Holophrastic utterances seem to be used to name objects; they may also be produced in circumstances that suggest the child is already extending their use. An empty bed may elicit the name of a sister who normally sleeps in the bed, even in the absence of the person named. During this stage the child may be capable of referring to Karen and bed, but is not yet ready to put the forms together to produce a more complex phrase. It is over expectation from a toddler to expect such thing. The child can only walk with a stagger and has to come downstairs backwards.

Topic- 226: Telegraphic Speech

Between two and two-and-a-half years old, the child starts a large number of utterances that could be classified as "multiple-word" speech. The salient feature of these utterances ceases to be the number of words, but the variation in word forms that begins to appear. This is the stage characterized by strings of words (lexical morphemes) in phrases or sentences such as:

- This shoe all wet
- Cat drink milk
- Daddy go bye-bye.
- Sentence building capacity
- Can get the word order correct

While this type of telegram-format speech is being produced, a number of grammatical inflections begin to appear, the word forms and simple prepositions (in, on).

By the age of two-and-a-half, the child's vocabulary is expanding rapidly and the child is initiating more talk while increased physical activity includes running and jumping. By three, the vocabulary has grown to hundreds of words and pronunciation has become closer to the form of adult language. At this point, it is worth considering what kind of influence the adults have in the development of the child's speech.

Lesson-42

HISTORICAL LINGUISTICS

Topic- 241: The Family Tree Model

Jones (1786) made the following observation about Sanskrit, the ancient language of Indian law: a number of languages from very different geographical areas must have some common ancestor. The discovery brought forth Proto-Indo-European group of languages. Scholars set out to identify the branches of the Indo-European family tree, tracing the lineage of many modern languages.

Thirty such language families containing more than 6,000 different individual languages (actually 6,912 languages) were established. These languages are in danger of extinction while a few are expanding. In terms of number of speakers:

- Chinese (about 1 billion)
- English (about 350 million)

Topic- 244: The Wave Model

During the 20th century the wave model has had little acceptance as a model for language change overall. It has recently gained more popularity among historical linguists due to the shortcomings of the Tree model. The wave model was originally presented by Johannes Schmidt.

In this diagram, the circles are to be regarded as diachronic; that is, they increase in diameter over time, like the concentric waves on a water surface struck by a stone. The circles are stable dialects; characters or bundles of characters that have been innovated and have become more stable over an originally small portion of the continuum for socio-political reasons. These circles spread from their small centers of maximum effectiveness like waves, becoming less effective than dissipating at maximum time and distance from the center. Languages are to be regarded as impermanent sets of speech habits that result from and prevail in the intersections of the circles.

Lesson-43

COMPUTATIONAL LINGUISTICS

Topic- 246: What is Computational Linguistics?

There has been a dream of human science fiction in recent years that computer could use language like humans. At present scientists have developed programs that can understand and learn aspects of human language both written and spoken. Varying degrees of translating between languages is possible. Computational linguistics seeks to develop the computational machinery needed for an agent to exhibit various forms of linguistic behaviour. Agent means human being and artificial agents such as computer program. Machinery mean computer programs as well as linguistics knowledge that they contain. Computers have no intelligence. Their linguistic capabilities derive from programs that are written for them. Computational understanding of language also provides insight into thinking and intelligence. The connection between these two fields is hardly accidental. Language involves complex symbols system and computers are very fast mechanical symbol-processor. Computational linguistics draws upon the involvement of linguists, computer scientists, and experts in artificial intelligence, mathematicians, logicians, philosophers, cognitive scientists, cognitive psychologists, psycholinguists, anthropologists and neuroscientists, among others. 'Human knowledge is expressed in language. So, computational linguistics is very important.' (Mark Steedman)

Topic- 248: Morphological Processing

Computational morphology deals with the processing of words and word forms, in both their graphemic, i.e., written form, and their phonemic, i.e., spoken form. The task of an automatic morphological analyzer is to take a word in a language and break it down into its stem form along with any affixes that it may have attached to that stem. In processing a sentence such as:

Hussain reads well,

The analysis should be:

- Hussain as a proper name
- reads as the third person singular present form of the verb read (read+s)
- well as either an adverb or a singular noun

The morphological analyzer will not be able to identify the syntactic roles of words. The role is the subsequent task of a syntactic parsing program.

Lesson-44

LEXICOGRAPHY

Topic- 252: The Dictionary: Definition and History

A Prototypical Dictionary: The prototypical dictionary has the form of a static (book) or dynamic product (e-dictionary) with an inter-structure that establishes links between the various components (e-dictionary) and is usually alphabetically structured.

Topic- 254: Uses and Users of Dictionaries

- Dictionaries are most used for reading tasks.
- Mostly in order to find out about meaning of unknown words.
- Less for writing tools especially for checking of spellings.
- Grammatical, etymological or phonetic information is only rarely looked up.
- In case of foreign languages, bilingual dictionaries are used more frequently.

Topic- 256: Developments in Electronic Dictionary Design

An electronic dictionary is a dictionary whose data exists in digital form and can be accessed through a number of different media. Electronic dictionaries can be found in several forms, including:

- as dedicated handheld devices
- as apps on smartphones and tablet computers or computer software
- as a function built into an E-reader

Lesson-45

LATEST TRENDS OF RESEARCH IN LINGUISTICS

Topic- 258: What is Linguistic Research or Research in Linguistics?

Linguistics is an important field of study which was introduced as a regular discipline in the universities of Europe as later as 1960s (Crystal, 1985).With the turn of the present century, this branch of knowledge further developed and many specializations were offered in various branches of linguistics in the well-known universities of the world (ibid). Research is one of the most important jobs of universities in the modern world. Universities keep on encouraging their students to conduct research studies in the neglected areas of various disciplines. It is a need of time to study the work of universities to evaluate their performance and for determining the existing research trends in various disciplines.

Topic- 259: Research Trends in Applied Linguistics

Neurolinguistics is the study of the neural mechanisms in the human brain that control the comprehension, production, and acquisition of language. As an interdisciplinary field, neurolinguistics draws methodology and theory from fields such as neuroscience, linguistics, cognitive science, neurobiology, communication disorders, neuropsychology, and computer science.

Forensic linguistics is the application of linguistic knowledge, methods and insights to the forensic context of law, language, crime investigation, trial, and judicial procedure. It is a branch of applied linguistics. According to Rastegar (2006), the research work using simple linear model of correlation was more in quantity while that using complex casual modelling, although less in quantity, was promising and of qualitatively high calibre and importance. The researcher concludes that casual modelling-pathway analysis is an effective tool of data analysis in the field of applied linguistics.

Topic- 264: Recent Progress in Applied Linguistics

Applied linguistics is an interdisciplinary subject and has wide development prospect. It occupies an irreplaceable important position in contemporary linguistic researches to a large extent and owns great practicability value. So, applied linguistics study has developed to the stage of cognitive theory and social constructivist theory. Cognitive theory school plays an important promotion role for development of applied linguistics. It advocates learners' learning subjectivity and creativity and considers language study is an active activity process. But, cognitive theory neglects researched on nonintellectual factors. Social constructivist theory makes up for this shortcoming. It stresses equal importance of social environment and cultural knowledge and holds knowledge acquisition is the result of learners' contact and interactions in specific social environment. It has great enlightenment on linguistics teaching practice and theoretical teaching and provides a new opportunity for applied linguistics development.